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Dilemmas of substitution: Why the urban poor support punitive policing in a Latin American city

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ABSTRACT
In the Global South, the urban poor are heavily policed and bear the brunt of police violence. Evidence suggests that the urban poor also support punitive policing. Why do those individuals most affected by police violence also appear to support increased police presence in their neighborhoods? Combining extensive fieldwork with a public opinion survey in Montevideo, the capital of Uruguay, this paper develops a theory that the urban poor support punitive policing because it reduces other forms of violence they are routinely exposed to in public spaces. Our argument contrasts with the prevalent hypothesis that support for punitive policing amongst the urban poor originates in conservative views of security provision. Because Uruguay is a least likely case for this argument, our results are highly informative. The results demonstrate the deeply unequal distribution of the lived experience of authoritarian coercive practices in an otherwise democratic context.

KEYWORDS
Urban violence; punitive policing; urban poor

Introduction

In Latin America, after democratization, there were important advances in political and civil rights.[1] This phenomenon coexists with a sharp increase in urban violence, particularly homicides, in many countries (Trejo et al., 2018; Yashar, 2018). Despite wide variation in levels of violence, citizens across Latin America are extremely concerned about (in)security (Bonner, 2018; Hilgers & Macdonald, 2017; LAPOP, 2012; Latinobarómetro, 2016, 2017). In general, the urban poor bear the brunt of violence (Auyero & Sobering, 2019; Auyero & Sobering, 2019, pp. 5–6). Peripheral neighborhoods concentrate higher rates of property crime and homicides, as well as the presence of organized criminal groups (Auyero & Berti, 2013; Barnes, 2022; Caldeira, 2002; Flom, 2019; Ramirez, 2015). These forms of violence, in conjunction with lack of access to state services, increase vulnerability by decreasing material and physical security (Álvarez-Rivadulla, 2017; Auyero & Sobering, 2019; González, 2021; Holland, 2017; Kilansky & Auyero, 2015). As a result, populations in these neighborhoods have fewer resources to deal with crime.

In this context, government strategies intended to combat crime have privileged punitive policing practices. Punitive policing—the systematic, preferential use of force geared toward punishment (Holland, 2013; Muggah et al., 2018; Ramirez, 2013, 2015)—has received ample support in public opinion throughout much of Latin America (Bonner, 2018; Holland, 2013; LAPOP, 2012).[2] Punitive policing is often justified as a necessary evil to reduce the incidence of crime and violence even though it threatens to undermine individual rights (Muggah et al., 2018) and despite the lack of evidence of its effectiveness to reduce crime and violence (Espinosa & Rubin, 2015; Gunderson, 2021; Mummolo, 2018). Current research has shown that punitive policies have differential effects in society. They have

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led to increased levels of police violence (Espinosa & Rubin, 2015) particularly in cities and specifically against certain groups—poor, Black, and immigrants—which also experience high levels of crime victimization (Auyero & Berti, 2013; Bowling & Phillips, 2007; Caldeira, 2002; LeBrón, 2019; Miller, 2016; Owens, 2020; Ramirez, 2015).

It would be logical to expect that groups who experience higher police violence would support punitive policing practices at a lower rate. However, evidence suggests that support for punitive policing practices is widespread among these groups (Auyero & Berti, 2013; Caldeira, 2002; Forman, 2017; Ramirez, 2015). We argue that these groups face a *dilemma of substitution*: the desire not to be victims of crime leads them to prefer punitive policing strategies, even when they may suffer the negative consequences of punitive policing as a result. Because individuals are afraid of crime, they choose punitive policing strategies to feel protected as they go about their daily lives. Our argument contrasts with other theories suggesting that conservatism and authoritarian values drive support for punitiveness among poor communities (King & Maruna, 2009).

Building on research on victimization, we argue that support for punitive policing is not related to conservative values but a response in the face of threats to material security. Rather than conservative values, we identify material needs as the basis for preferences for punitiveness. We contribute to current studies of crime victimization in identifying diverging mechanisms for support across social class. Residents in peripheral neighborhoods have fewer resources to bolster their individual security. Conversely, those who live in higher income neighborhoods can resort to their own resources for the provision of security (alarm systems, private security, security cameras, etc.). The lack of access to private security in peripheral neighborhoods means that residents need to rely more strongly on the state for protection. Peripheral neighborhood residents' liberties are affected by high levels of crime on a regular basis. In these circumstances, residents might prefer punitive policing to reclaim some of their freedoms, as well as their security. Punitive policing may provide a sense of protection from crime victimization.

We build a theory about the reasons behind low-income residents' support for punitive policing with a mixed-methods design combining qualitative fieldwork (in-depth interviews and direct observation) with an original public opinion survey in the city of Montevideo, the capital of Uruguay. We use the qualitative component to build our theory, and to generate hypotheses, which we subsequently test with a quantitative component, through the analysis of our public opinion survey data. Uruguay is a hard case for our argument. Compared to other Latin American cases, the country exhibits low levels of inequality, crime victimization and police violence.[3] One would not expect to observe high support for punitive policing; however, citizens support these policing strategies, especially in low-income neighborhoods.

This paper is in line with research identifying the challenges facing democracies aiming to control police abuse and to build egalitarian justice systems (González, 2021; Jennings et al., 2017). Punitive policing practices undermine the equal application of the law, one of the main tenants of the rule of law. Yet, the popularity of these policies creates incentives for politicians to continue choosing them, creating challenges to implement reforms that democratize police and policing strategies.

We also contribute to the literature on police legitimacy and procedural fairness. Perceptions of procedural fairness are key to police legitimacy and effectiveness. According to this body of research, when citizens view police practices as fair, they tend to question authority less and they are also more prone to provide information to police, which is essential for police effectiveness (Hurwitz & Peffley, 1997; Sunshine & Tyler, 2003; Tyler, 2011). Accordingly, if citizens perceive they are disproportionately targeted by police, it may undermine perceptions of fairness. We argue, however, that citizens may be willing to tolerate some level of targeting, if it increases perceptions of safety from crime.

Uneven policing in urban contexts and support for punitiveness

In urban contexts security policy is unevenly implemented as crime and violence are unevenly distributed in the territory. Residents of urban peripheries are exposed to and sometimes experience

different kinds of violence. Some of this violence is structural, or indirect, resulting from lack of access to public services, high levels of informality and unemployment, precarity in living conditions (Álvarez-Rivadulla, 2017; Holland, 2017). They also experience direct violence, derived from high levels of crime: violent robberies, homicides, extortion, and conflict among criminal groups (Auyero & Berti, 2013; Auyero & Sobering, 2019; Caldeira, 2002; Kilansky & Auyero, 2015).

As states seek to control crime, the distribution of policing is also uneven. Contrary to what one might expect, the provision of protection does not operate as a public good. Rather, protection (and repression) is provided differently across social cleavages (González, 2021, pp. 38–39). Peripheral urban neighborhoods concentrate higher presence of police and more intense policing, as well as higher levels of police abuse (Alves, 2018; Auyero & Sobering, 2019; Caldeira, 2002; Flom, 2019; Ramirez, 2015; Sharkey, 2018).

Because peripheral neighborhoods are often considered crime "hot spots," policing operations typically consist of their "saturation"—the deployment of an inordinate amount of units to an area—to deter crime (Braga et al., 2014; Weisburd, 2018). Another common practice are brief detentions with low standards of evidence, known as stop-and-frisk. Because police officers exhibit bias against specific populations, stop-and-frisk practices disproportionately affect ethnic minorities (Fassin, 2013; Sharkey, 2018; Solhjell et al., 2019). These practices occur in developing and developed countries alike (Sharkey, 2018, p. 115). These macro dynamics are reproduced at the micro level. Police officers exhibit bias against specific populations when implementing policy. Stop-and-frisk practices disproportionately affect Black and Latino communities in the United States (Sharkey, 2018) and ethnic minorities in peripheral neighborhoods throughout Europe (Bowling & Phillips, 2007; Fassin, 2013; T. P. Gerber & Mendelson, 2008; Solhjell et al., 2019). Consequently, certain groups are more often targets of criminal and police violence (Brinks, 2007; Enns, 2016; Kilansky & Auyero, 2015; Ramirez, 2015).

In Latin America, the widespread use of hot spot policing has generated concerns about its lack of effectiveness (Blattman, 2017; Lessing, 2018) and the reinforcement of stigma against peripheral neighborhoods and their residents. Instead of the even application of the law, punitive policies may reinforce the notion that residents of peripheries belong to "dangerous classes" who either tolerate, or are responsible for, crime (Fassin, 2013; Galvani, 2016; Pinheiro, 1991; Silva, 2014). Crime problems begin to be perceived less as an issue of inequality and more as a question of order (Alves, 2018; Fassin, 2013; Sharkey, 2018). These perceptions are reinforced by the policy itself: high crime areas are more heavily policed, consequently, more crime is detected, which buttresses the notion that these neighborhoods should be increasingly policed (Hübert & Litlle, 2020).

Despite its negative consequences, punitive policing enjoys widespread support (LAPOP, 2012; Muggah et al., 2018). Existing research has proposed several reasons behind support for punitiveness. A body of work has identified the influence of ideas and values, highlighting the role of ideology and societal views (Krause, 2014; M. M. Gerber & Jackson, 2016). Specifically, higher support for punitive practices among the poor has been tied to persistent authoritarian values associated with lower education levels (King & Maruna, 2009). Research also suggests that racial prejudice and resentment as well as perceptions of threat are associated with support for punitiveness (Barkan & Cohn, 2005; Ramirez, 2013; Unnever et al., 2015) Others prioritize experiences of crime victimization over values to explain the extent of support (Visconti, 2020). As a result of violent experiences, individuals may be willing to make a tradeoff between liberty and security (Davis & Silver, 2004). Similarly, neighborhood residents may be willing to sacrifice personal freedom if it affords them protection from crime. Support for punitive policing also stems from perceptions of police legitimacy and effectiveness. For example, neighborhood residents tend to perceive police as more legitimate and effective when they behave more aggressively (G. A. Flores-Macías & Zarkin, 2019; Blair et al., 2019).

High support for punitive policing practices in neighborhoods where these practices are widespread is puzzling: since residents suffer the negative consequences of punitive practices, they should not support this type of policing. Yet, the dynamics of support for punitive practices among residents of the periphery are not as straightforward. Evidence from Brazil and Argentina shows that peripheral neighborhood residents strongly support punitive practices as tools to deal with high levels of crime

(Caldeira, 2002; González, 2021), but they also complain about police abuse (González, 2021). Research in the United States also suggests that support for punitive policing may be present even in those groups most affected by police violence, such as Black Americans (Forman, 2017; Ramirez, 2015). Other research has shown that support for these practices may be driven by differential experiences with police: those who experience punitive policing practices may not support them (González, 2021; Skogan, 2006; Weitzer & Tuch, 2004). Even though research identifies support for punitiveness among minorities, the mechanisms behind it are unclear, particularly outside of advanced democracies. We seek to fill this void in the literature.

Why do people who are affected by punitive practices also support them?

Everyday violence in poor neighborhoods leads to a preference for punitiveness, even though these policies lead to increased contact and opportunities for abuse. This preference does not necessarily stem from conservative values or an authoritarian predilection for violence; rather, it may be the only mechanism to increase personal safety. Therefore, in low-income contexts protection comes at the cost of repression, this is what we call a dilemma of substitution.

The possibility of being a victim of crime has direct consequences for residents' ability to move freely, forcing them to alter everyday routines. For instance, they may refrain from leaving their home after a certain time of the day, or travel in the company of a relative or another neighbor, or they avoid certain areas. These kinds of strategies are less frequent in neighborhoods where income levels are higher. Even though these neighborhoods may also be affected by crime, levels of violence are much lower, and residents have other resources to confront crimes such as robberies. As a result, peripheral neighborhood residents prefer punitive policing strategies as mechanisms to reduce violent crimes and associated material precarity, and to reestablish order in society and reclaim some of their freedoms.

As crime rises, state responses typically involve increasing police presence, which increases contact with neighborhood residents. As contact between police and residents increases, so do opportunities for police abuse (Sunshine & Tyler, 2003).[4] Under these conditions, one might anticipate that differential support for punitiveness is associated with differential experiences with police and police violence. We suggest that variation in support for punitiveness is not totally explained by differential experiences with police. On the contrary, residents of peripheral neighborhoods adapt to police presence and develop strategies to avoid them, if necessary (F. Stuart, 2016), they also tolerate punitive practices. Preferences for punitive policies are driven by expected short-term benefits: residents of low-income neighborhoods seek increased and more forceful police presence as an immediate response to increase feelings of personal safety. From this point of view, effectiveness is not related to objective crime reduction. Individuals prioritize feelings of safety as a measure of police effectiveness, irrespective of whether crime patterns change in the long run. Those feelings of safety may be tied to the presence of police that "look aggressive" (G. Flores-Macías & Zarkin, 2022).

In higher-income areas, residents have access to mechanisms of protection beyond police presence (electrified fences, alarms, private security, among others), which further increases geographic disparities (Fassin, 2013). Residents are willing to limit some of their freedoms if it affords them greater security. In lower-income contexts, individuals have lesser material security in general, their freedoms are already limited by high levels of crime and violence, and they rely on the state for the provision of protection to a greater extent. A key driver behind preferences for punitiveness in low-income contexts is residents' immediate need for protection and the possibility to regain some of their freedoms in the face of high crime, not just a desire for increased punishment (García-Ponce et al., 2022).

Contrary to the tradeoff between liberty and security and the notion that conservative values drive punitive preferences, we argue that citizens of peripheral neighborhoods face a *dilemma of substitution*: everyday violence and the desire not to be victims of crime lead them to prefer punitive policing, but they may suffer the effects as a result. The dilemma of substitution is palpable when residents experience the punitive practices they support: if they continue to support punitive practices, they risk being their victims, but if they do not, they risk increased criminal violence in their neighborhood and threats to their

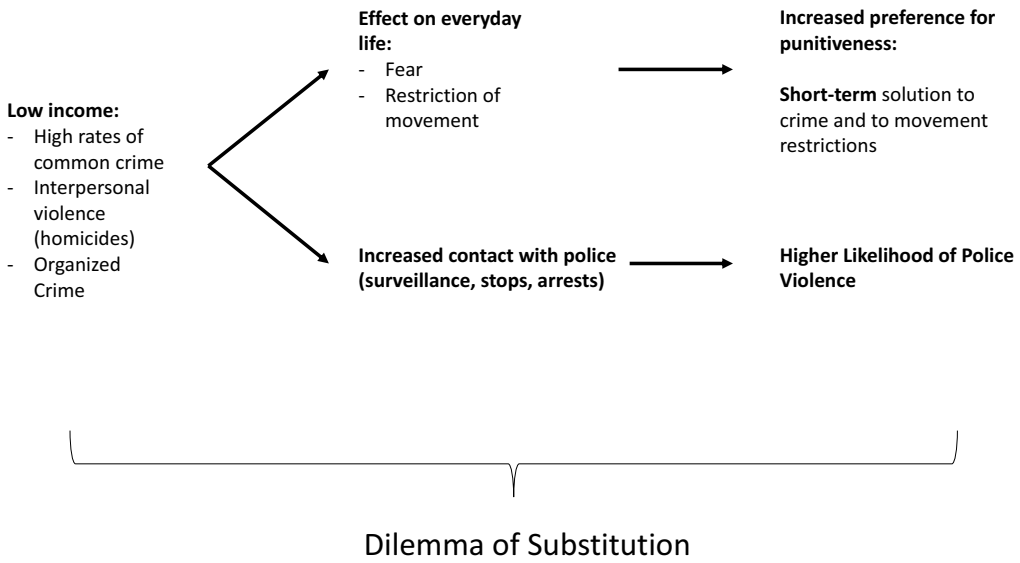

Figure 1. The dilemma of substitution.

personal safety. This dilemma is not simply a feeling of ambivalence, rather, individuals are forced to choose between two sub-optimal alternatives. The theoretical argument is stylized in Figure 1: the figure shows the mechanism that we call *dilemma of substitution* and the intermediate steps in the causal chain.[5]

At its core, the dilemma of substitution is sustained by perceptions about the likelihood of experiencing police violence. If this perceived likelihood is low, the dilemma is mitigated or it may disappear. However, because policing is predicated upon some level of repression, increasing police presence increases the likelihood of repression toward anyone who seems suspicious (Lerman & Weaver, 2014). Yet, residents assume that police will apply punitive practices toward "others" who break the rules and create disorder (Ramirez, 2015; Tiscornia et al., 2021).

Our argument assumes that as police presence increases in a neighborhood, police violence will eventually become visible and residents, or someone they know, will experience police violence. If, on the other hand, residents do not observe police violence, the dilemma of substitution is not such and preferences for punitiveness, if they exist, are based on different foundations. From our argument about support for punitive policing we hypothesize that residing in a low-income neighborhood is associated with higher support for punitive policing. In addition, we should find evidence of the dilemma of substitution in low-income neighborhoods. We should observe narratives that suggest support for punitive policing as a tool to preserve freedom of movement in the face of high crime. Conversely, in higher income neighborhoods, if there is support for punitiveness, we should observe evidence of other foundations. In sum, the mechanisms behind support for punitive policing vary based on individuals' social position.

A corollary of our argument is that if the dilemma of substitution is present, we should expect to observe increased support for punitiveness up to a point, and decreased support when police violence exceeds a threshold of tolerable levels, or a tipping-point, which may vary by context (see, Figure 2). For example, in contexts where police violence is routinely present and high, residents might be desensitized to it and the dilemma of substitution might be triggered at higher levels of police use of force (Caldeira, 2002).

Crime and policing at the urban margins of Montevideo

Uruguay constitutes a crucial least likely case for our theory. Least likely cases are those where one should not observe an outcome and yet it is observed. For this reason, least likely cases are

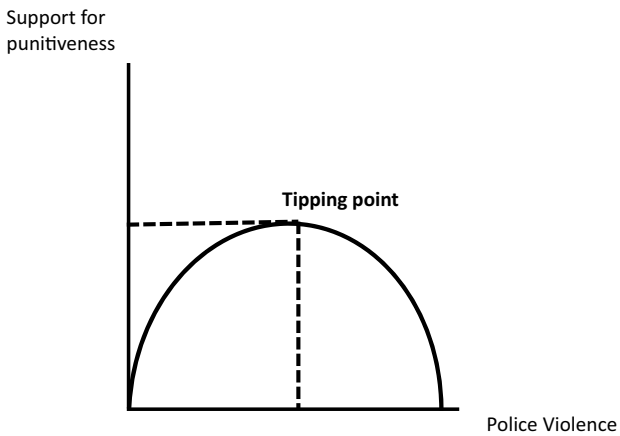

Figure 2. Tipping point in support for punitiveness.

highly informative about the dynamics of an outcome of interest. Specifically, crucial least likely cases are useful to provide evidence about the causal mechanisms underpinning a theory, they are not selected to be representative of a population of cases (Gerring, 2007). Due to the low levels of violence, crime and inequality, we should not expect to observe high support for punitive policing strategies in Uruguay. However, the public supports these strategies, particularly the urban poor.[6]

Among Latin American countries, Uruguay has historically been one of the most egalitarian (Filgueira & Filgueira, 1994; Pribble, 2013; Sánchez-Ancochea, 2020). However, social and spatial segregation are present in big cities, a phenomenon that can be traced back to the 1960s. "Poverty belts" and "shanty towns" formed in the outskirts of Montevideo leading to the creation of precarious neighborhoods with very limited infrastructure. These processes of marginalization and exclusion worsened during the military dictatorship (1973–1984) and persisted in the post-democratic transition, even as public spending increased. Historically, poverty belts gathered informal workers, and more recently an important portion of ex-convicts and poor immigrants (Álvarez Pedrosian, 2013; Álvarez-Rivadulla, 2017). These neighborhoods are precarious, but there is also a variety of public services that seek to target their needs. Particularly since 2005, public spending targeting low-income neighborhoods increased dramatically (Pribble, 2013). Figure 3 presents an example of the extensive state (and civil society organizations) presence in Montevideo. Gray circles represent some of the poorest neighborhoods.[7]

Uruguay also exhibits low levels of violent crime, compared to most countries in Latin America (Yashar, 2018). However, in the last 15 years, crime has risen (Bonomi et al., 2017; Casanova, 2019). This increase in crime has taken place above all in the department of Montevideo, which, as of 2010, accounted for 58% of crimes nationwide and 83.61% of violent robberies.[8] This increase in crime takes place in a context of reduction of inequality under "the left turn" in Uruguay (2005–2015). These averages hide micro-level variation. Homicides and violent robberies are concentrated in just a few neighborhoods which also exhibit the lowest socioeconomic indicators, whereas nonviolent robberies occur in middle class neighborhoods (Bonomi et al., 2017; Ministerio del Interior, 2018a, 2018b). A more recent phenomenon, which has evolved over the past decade, is the presence of criminal gangs mainly dealing in drugs. Even though there is currently no systematic knowledge about these gangs, government and press reports show the existence and rapid increase of violent confrontations among them, including frequent shootouts as well as displays of violence toward neighborhood residents that generate high levels of fear (Bonomi et al., 2017; Casanova, 2019).

Given this context in public safety, Uruguay has also become part of the recent wave of punitive reforms in Latin America (Muggah et al., 2018). Between 2016 and 2019, the national police implemented a comprehensive institutional reform, which included a component called *Programa de Alta Dedicación Operativa* (PADO). This reform process focused on modernizing the police and

Figure 3. Spatial distribution of state and civil society presence in Montevideo.

responding to citizens' increased concerns with crime. PADO, a hot spot policing program, consists of intensive police patrolling and rapid response actions in select neighborhoods with high levels of crime and violence (Bonomi et al., 2017; Chainey et al., 2020; Ministerio del Interior, 2019). Its goal is to prevent crime by deploying deterrent patrolling.

A key aspect of PADO is its independence from police stations and the substitution of "random patrolling." In the past, police chiefs were in charge of designating patrol areas, not necessarily based on hard evidence about the occurrence of crime, which resulted in inefficient policing and instances of corruption. Currently, the Unified Command Center, a unit in charge of processing information from crime reports to identify hot spots, determines where PADO units patrol (Bonomi et al., 2017; Ministerio del Interior, 2019). PADO is generally associated with more frequent and more intense displays of force. For example, it conducts frequent "saturation operations," consisting of inundating a neighborhood with police and conducting raids, among other tactics. Saturation operations typically take place in peripheral neighborhoods (Ministerio del Interior, 2019).

PADO has garnered high support among residents, including in the neighborhoods where it is implemented. According to the survey we conducted (described in detail in the next section), 54% of respondents have a positive perception of PADO and only 5% have negative perception. In low-income neighborhoods 60% of respondents evaluate PADO positively. However, many of these neighborhood residents have also experienced increased use of police coercion because of increased police presence.

The most frequent task PADO carries out are stop-and-frisk operations. According to our interviews with specialists from the police, in 2018 there were about 4,000 stop-and-frisk operations monthly in Montevideo. The practice involves "stopping individuals who seem suspicious based on police reports in the area where they patrol."[9] Increased contact creates opportunities for abuse (Sunshine & Tyler, 2003). In the case of PADO, our interviews, as well as official reports show that there have been instances of abuse, particularly in low-income neighborhoods.[10]

Mixed methods design

To build our argument about the relationship between place of residence, violence and support for punitiveness, our strategy combines qualitative and quantitative methods. Our multi-method approach draws from: (1) 45 interviews, as well as observation and participation in community meetings in three neighborhoods in the city of Montevideo; and (2) an original survey of 2,900 residents across all neighborhoods in Montevideo.[11]

First, we conducted qualitative fieldwork with the goal of generating new hypotheses and causal mechanisms concerning the reasons behind the high support for punitive policing among residents of poor urban neighborhoods in developing countries (Pérez Bentancur & Tiscornia, 2022). Through qualitative fieldwork we obtained thick descriptions about these phenomena; qualitative fieldwork allowed us to extract "ideas at close range," producing insights we used to construct the causal chain linking our independent variables and our outcome of interest (Collier, 1999). Qualitative fieldwork allows us to better understand the logic behind support for punitiveness in low-income neighborhoods. It provides evidence of *how* this process occurs (Beach & Pedersen, 2016; Dunning, 2015; George & Bennett, 2005). Specifically, we used the interviews to provide evidence of our key causal mechanism: the dilemma of substitution. The interviews show residents' ambivalence regarding punitive policing and the tradeoffs associated with it. The interviews also provide evidence suggestive of a tipping point: when residents experience police violence, they change their views.

We conducted our qualitative fieldwork in July and August 2019, and March 2020. We focused on the two poorest neighborhoods in the city (Casavalle-Marconi and Cerro Norte), and an upper-middle income neighborhood (Parque Rodó). The three neighborhoods exhibit high levels of crime. Casavalle-Marconi and Cerro Norte also exhibit presence of organized criminal groups as well as intensive PADO presence. Figure 4 shows a map of the department of Montevideo. Areas in dark gray are urban, white represents rural areas. Striped areas correspond to neighborhoods were PADO patrols.[12] The neighborhoods where we conducted fieldwork are identified with dark gray circles.

Since interactions between police and residents are more common in neighborhoods with more extensive PADO presence, we are more likely to find evidence of our causal mechanism more easily in those areas. Residents in neighborhoods without PADO also know about it, and also have opinions about citizen-police interactions. Our survey results show that PADO is generally well-known across neighborhoods in Montevideo (70.6% of our survey respondents expressed an opinion about the program).[13] In Casavalle and Cerro Norte we should identify evidence of the dilemma of substitution, our main causal mechanism. In Parque Rodó, justifications for punitive policing should be based on other rationales.

We interviewed neighborhood residents, local authorities, local leaders, NGO and local organizations' workers to understand the features of security and insecurity, experiences with crime victimization and interactions with police. To obtain the most complete account of local contexts we interviewed a variety of actors on the ground and triangulated information. Local residents provide direct accounts of their experiences with violence in their daily lives, but they might have an incentive to overstate it. Local authorities, on the other hand, might have an incentive to understate the use of police violence. If either does not act in accordance with their corresponding incentive, their descriptions constitute strong evidence in favor of our theory because they run counter the expected bias.[14]

After conducting our interviews, and to test whether the relationship between poverty and support for punitiveness extends beyond our case studies, we deployed an online survey at the beginning of 2020 using Facebook as a recruitment tool (Samuels & Zucco, 2013; Zhang et al., 2020) and taking advantage of the widespread availability of internet access and Facebook use in Montevideo (INE/AGESIC, 2016; Opción Consultores, 2018). Because we gathered our sample through Facebook, ensuring representativeness is a potential challenge. In the appendix, we present a table that includes a comparison between our sample and the population of Montevideo. The comparison shows that our sample is younger, more left-leaning and more educated than the average for Montevideo.[15] Yet, our main goal was to obtain information that allowed us to make comparisons between areas with different

Figure 4. Fieldwork sites and areas with PADO presence.

income levels. For a variety of reasons, including security and logistical factors, residents in low-income neighborhoods are routinely excluded from otherwise representative surveys (Murillo et al., 2021). Our recruitment strategy seeks to ameliorate this omission. Using Facebook allowed us to target specific geographic areas to obtain responses from lower-income individuals. This strategy, although imperfect, ensures that our inferences include our population of interest.

In the survey, we asked respondents about their perceptions of and experiences with police. We also gathered information about socio-demographic features of our respondents such as sex, age, race, and education level, as well as crime victimization and information about their ideological preferences. The survey was deployed between January and March of 2020, we gathered 2,900 responses across the 62 neighborhoods in the city of Montevideo. We used the survey to test our propositions regarding a positive relationship between residing in a low-income neighborhood and support for punitiveness.

Our mixed-methods strategy consists of utilizing our interviews to identify causal mechanisms, and the survey to test our theory. Even though we conducted our interviews first and the survey second, we present and discuss descriptive statistics from our survey as well as the results of our statistical analyses first. Subsequently, we present information from our interviews, to illustrate the conditions of insecurity in Montevideo, as well as the dilemma of substitution.

Evidence of support for punitive policing and the dilemma of substitution

Survey results and statistical analysis

One of the implications of our argument is that we should observe higher levels of support for punitive policing in lower-income neighborhoods as compared to others. To test this implication, we relied on original data from a public opinion survey conducted online between January and March of 2020 in all of Montevideo. To capture whether individuals support punitive policing—our dependent variable—we used the question "what type of police would you like to see in your neighborhood?" The options were "PADO," "regular police," or "no police."[16] Based on those options we constructed a dichotomous indicator of support for punitive policing, where PADO assumed the value of 1.[17]

We can think of this dichotomous variable as indicative of the proportion of respondents who support punitive policing in our sample.

Figure 5 presents the distribution of support for punitive policing for low-income residents as compared to residents in other neighborhoods. As the figure shows, support is much higher in low-income contexts. Fisher's exact test (two sided) is statistically significant, suggesting that these two variables are not independent. According to Figure 5, support for punitiveness is relatively high across contexts, but it is much higher in low-income neighborhoods: 80% of respondents expressed preferences for PADO, as compared to 55% in other areas.

To avoid high rates of non-response, we did not include a survey question about individual income. However, in the case of Montevideo, we can proxy income at the individual level with aggregate information at the neighborhood level. Research on urban segregation in Montevideo has demonstrated that there is relative homogeneity in income within neighborhoods and higher heterogeneity across neighborhoods (Retamoso & Katzman, 2005; Rodríguez Vivas, 2019). Therefore, we operationalize our main explanatory factor as a dichotomous variable indicating residence in a low-income neighborhood, versus others.

Aside from our proposed explanatory factor, living in a low-income neighborhood, there are other factors that may affect the likelihood of support for punitive policing. Based on our literature review, individuals' socio-demographic features, as well as ideology and prior exposure to crime, are likely predictors of their support for punitiveness. To assess whether living in a low-income neighborhood is associated with higher support for punitive policing, we estimated a logistic regression model where our dependent variable is a dichotomous indicator of support for punitive policing, and our main explanatory factor is whether a respondent resides in a low-income neighborhood. We also account for those confounding factors presented in our review of the literature by including dichotomous indicators for sex, race and prior crime victimization, as well as ordinal indicators for ideology, education, and age (see table A5 in the appendix for the full list of descriptive statistics).[18] We include robust standard errors clustered at the individual level.

Figure 6 presents the results from our logistic regression. The figure shows predicted support, based on whether individuals live in a low-income neighborhood. Controlling for relevant confounders, according to Figure 6 support for punitiveness is quite high across income levels. More than 60% of those who live in higher income neighborhoods are in favor of punitive policing. However, support for punitiveness is about 20 percentage points higher for individuals who live in low-income neighborhoods. Estimates are statistically significant at 95% confidence.[19]

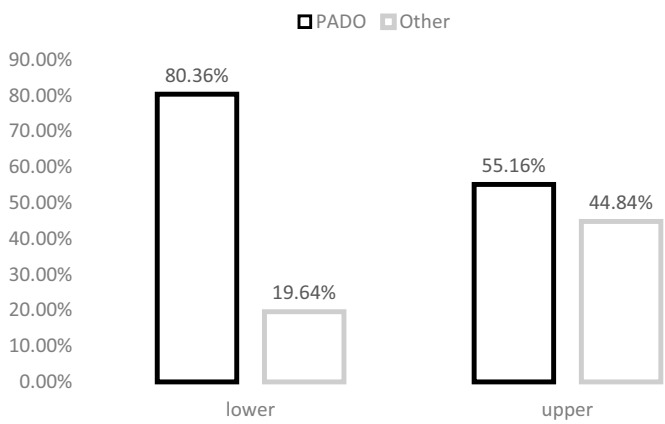

Figure 5. Support for punitive policing by neighborhood income level.

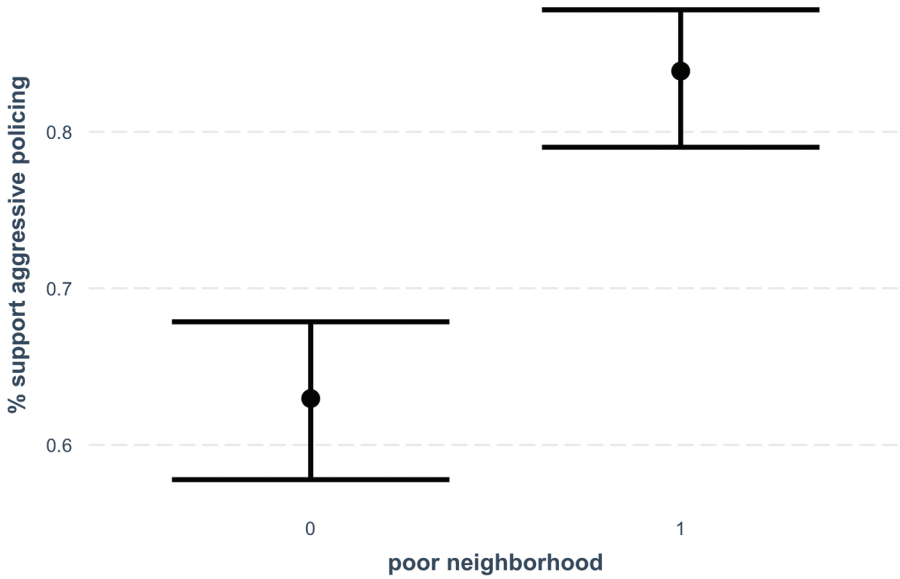

Figure 6. Support for punitive policing (N = 1,680).

Robustness

One potential weakness of analyzing observational data is the existence of imbalances in relevant covariates between treatment and control groups as a result of selection effects. It is likely that the characteristics of individuals residing in low-income neighborhoods are different from those who do not, which may bias our estimates. One tool to address imbalances in the distribution of our covariates of interest is matching.

Matching is a statistical technique consisting of identifying observations that are comparable across a series of relevant dimensions between treatment and control groups (E. A. Stuart, 2010). In our case, it involves taking the "treatment group"—living in a low-income neighborhood—and finding a "control group" among those who live in neighborhoods other than low-income that is similar to the treatment group on a series of confounders of interest, such as sex, education, ideology (Diamond & Sekhon, 2013). For the matched sample to be valid, assessing the quality of the matches is important. In the appendix we present a love plot as well as plots of the distributions of our confounders as a mechanism to assess whether balance has improved.

As it is standard in the literature, we utilized different matching techniques and assessed which one produced better balance prior to estimating our models. We implemented full matching and genetic matching, with the second one producing better balance[20] .[21] One important trade-off is that although full matching produces worse balance it does not discard observations, whereas genetic matching affords better balance at the cost of discarding some observations (626 observations are unmatched). Our final sample contains 1,153 control observations and 527 treated observations (our sample size is somewhat reduced also due to missingness in our dependent variable). Once we pre-processed our sample using matching, we re-estimated our model with cluster-robust standard errors at the individual level, including confounders (Ho et al., 2007). The results of our estimation are presented in Figure 7. After matching, Figure 7 supports our initial intuition. Accounting for imbalances in our sample, living in a low-income neighborhood increases support for punitive policing.

Even though matching mitigates problems of selection on known confounders, it cannot eliminate bias resulting from unknown confounders, or omitted variables. Yet, we can implement sensitivity analysis tools to assess how large the effect of a hypothetical unknown confounder would have to be to radically change our results. In the appendix we present results from sensitivity analysis, which provide support for our analysis.

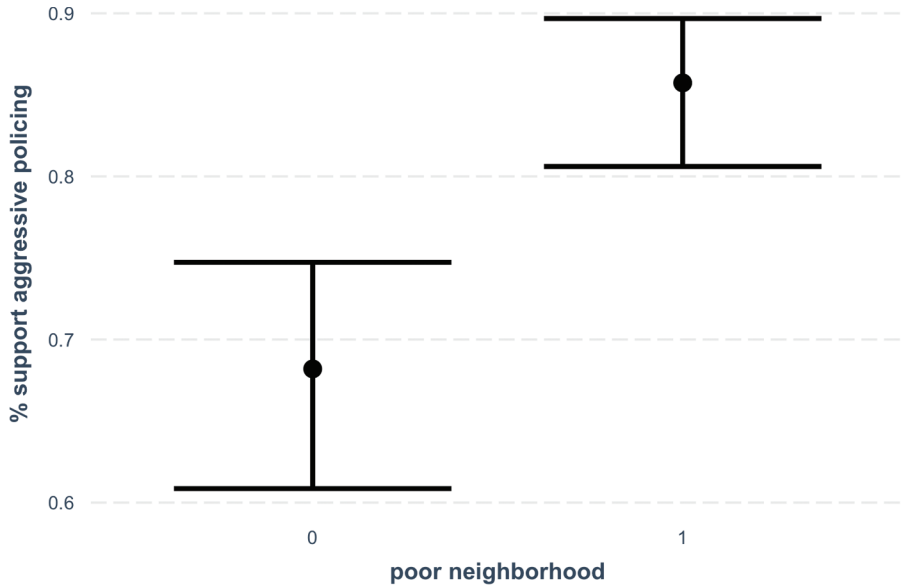

Figure 7. Support for punitive policing matched sample genetic matching (N = 1,054).

Lastly, we address the possibility of endogeneity, a concern derived from overlap between low-income neighborhoods and PADO presence. PADO is deployed to "crime hot spots," which are located in low-income neighborhoods (Chainey et al., 2020). It is possible that a driver of support for PADO is the very presence of PADO. Because PADO presence and low-income neighborhood residence are colinear we did not include it in our statistical analyses. However, survey evidence shows that high support for punitiveness predates the creation of PADO and its implementation (LAPOP, 2012). In addition, PADO deployment is not driven by support, decisions are made centrally (as opposed to at the police station level) based on crime reports.

Our survey results allow us to demonstrate an association between living in a low-income neighborhood and higher support for punitive policing. However, they do not allow us to show evidence of our main causal mechanism; we use information from our interviews to this aim.

Citizens' dilemma of substitution in Montevideo

We use our fieldwork to illustrate the process that leads individuals to support punitive policing despite its consequences. The interviews illuminate the reasons behind public opinion support for punitiveness in low-income neighborhoods and show that neighborhood residents face a dilemma of substitution: everyday violence leads them to prefer punitive policing, but they may suffer the consequences of such policies. Nevertheless, when residents are victims of police abuse, they may reject punitive practices. Specifically, interviews help us identify situations of everyday violence that residents experience and how these situations elicit preferences for punitive practices. As a result of high levels of violent crime, residents develop specific adaptation strategies in order to either avoid potential violent encounters or mitigate them. These strategies are only partially successful, the accumulation of instances of violence leads to preferences for aggressive state strategies to confront crime.

Interviews with diverse individuals, neighbors, NGO and state employees, in neighborhoods in the outskirts of Montevideo indicated, over and over again, that in the periphery, violence is a constant. Everyday violence affects residents' material and physical security, and it generates fear. Interviewees identify two main sources of violence: violent robberies as well as confrontations between criminal groups involved in drug sales.

> I would love for it to be peaceful, where I live there's always something . . . my window overlooks the alley; the other day I was asleep, and in the alley, they were shooting. I had to go to my daughter's bedroom because if there was a stray bullet, it was going to go through the glass window, and it was going to come straight to where I was. So, when there are shootings, we have to run to the back room, or lay flat on the floor, it gets worse every day. [22]

> These shootouts that end up with no one dead or injured, but they are constant and at any moment. This generates such a great fear in the populations that is doesn't allow them to move.[23]

> If you were at the bus stop, it was like a lottery, you could be robbed at any time, morning, afternoon, evening, it didn't matter.[24]

> I was dragged by a motorcycle; they wanted my purse. They pushed me . . . when I was getting up, they pointed a gun at me, and they pushed me again. I fell in the mud, got all dirty, and hurt my knees.[25]

Everyday violence alters life in the neighborhood. As a coping mechanism, residents develop different micro-strategies of accompaniment and community support, such as taking additional precautions to move around, or restricting their own mobility (either after certain hours, or by avoiding certain places):

> I have a son who's 17, he comes back from school after 7 p.m. I go to the bus stop to wait for him at that time of the evening. He calls me to let me know where he's at, and then I go. Sometimes, he doesn't want to tell me because he wants to look after me too. Many people pick up their kids from the bus stop. I go to work at 8:30 a.m., and I wait for another woman because I fear walking by myself. Same on the way back.[26]

> I used to go to work at 5 a.m. All the women got together, and someone's husband would walk us to the bus stop, he'd carry a machete.[27]

> I leave at noon to sell food, after that I lock myself up at home. I go around the neighborhood, but there are places I avoid.[28]

The consequences of everyday violence create strong immediate concerns regarding personal safety. These concerns are at the core of preferences for systematic police presence, regardless of macro evidence suggesting the ineffectiveness of policing strategies focusing on hot spots of crime (Mummolo, 2018). The preference for punitive policing is generalized among our interviewees as a response to the need for a short-term solution to crime. Residents support punitive policing because policies that could tackle the root causes of crime in the long run do not solve immediate pressing concerns with physical safety. As a local government official and longtime resident in one of these neighborhoods explains: "If there isn't a strong enough investment in this area, the process will be so slow that you won't be able to control [the deterioration of the neighborhood and everyday violence]. You will lose a generation."[29]

As a result of this immediate concern, residents tend to perceive the presence of punitive police like PADO as a "pacifying force" in the neighborhood. Inasmuch as PADO deters crime in the areas where it is present, it represents an "effective" strategy to control crime, irrespective of its effect at a larger scale:

> Excellent, there should be more PADO. Where there is PADO there is peace. They are here for longer hours and they are better trained. They were on my block for six months. You could go out knowing they were there.[30]

> Changes are noticeable since PADO. In the past, you got mugged all the time. Since PADO arrived the situation is different . . . It is not 100% what we would want, but it is an improvement in security. The only disadvantage is that there aren't enough of them. There should be more.[31]

Support for PADO does not imply that residents only prefer punitive strategies. In fact, neighborhood residents highly support PADO presence but they also support, and participate in, other state–community initiatives and partnerships seeking to provide solutions to various neighborhood concerns, including high crime. For example, the city council's office in Casavalle (Civic Center, per its name in Spanish), which includes representation from multiple state service providers (telecommunications company, social security, among others), holds regular meetings between neighbors and

state officials.[32] In some of these meetings residents discussed initiatives to improve material aspects in the neighborhood. For example, residents participated in a mapping exercise to identify areas that required infrastructural changes with the goal of improving security, which resulted in several improvements.[33] The Civic Center has also become a point of reference when residents come in contact with police and face abuses.[34]

The implementation of PADO increased the number of police in some peripheral neighborhoods. Higher police presence generates opportunities for negative contact with residents (Peyton et al., 2019; Skogan, 2006). In fact, a recent report from the National Institution for Human Rights shows that reports of abuses by PADO have increased.[35] Our qualitative fieldwork indicates that police abuse is visible to neighborhood residents. Many of our interviewees describe instances of police mistreatment and abuse: verbal violence, pushing and punching, and even threats with firearms.[36] But because there is high violence in the neighborhood, they face a dilemma: they risk repression but, if they don't tolerate it, they risk suffering the consequences of violent crime. "Switch the D for an L [PADO becomes PALO, *stick* in Spanish], and this is community repression. But, please, don't let them leave! We need the police."[37]

A local government officer who has worked in the neighborhood for the past 5 years and is well acquainted with the local challenges articulates this ambivalence very clearly: "It is contradictory. On the one hand, they ask for more security, and on the other, when it hits them personally, it is total rejection."[38] We found other examples of this dilemma in conversations with residents who explicitly support PADO presence. Residents are often willing to be stopped and asked for their ID, and they accept this process as part of routine police work, despite representing a restriction on their freedom of movement and despite not being obligated to carry an identification. However, when they face abuse, they are confused, frustrated and irritated.

> We know that searching you is what they have to do, they need to fill out a spreadsheet and sometimes they will ask for your information. If they ask for our ID, who would be bothered? . . . The police stop a lot of people . . . women. They searched everything you had, your bag, everything. Workers suffered this a lot. If you are coming from work and see police, you are not going to run from them . . . but then they stop you and they treat you as if you were a criminal. We have a friend who works in private security. One day, PADO stopped him, and they slapped him several times. He told them, "Don't you see my uniform? I'm coming from work!" It's not about being searched, we know they need to do that, it's about how they treat you.[39]

> A while ago I went to fetch my child from school . . . I saw a police van . . . . I kept on walking and all of a sudden, the van stopped, they got out of it, they pushed me against a wall and they [violently] searched me. They asked for my documents, I told them I didn't have them. A neighbor came out . . . he told them, 'officer, I know him, he lives here, he's a local councilor'. And only then he [the officer] says to me, 'you a councilor?' He then said, 'we are sorry, we thought you looked like someone else.' It makes you look terrible in front of people, because you don't have a record, but they still stop you. It's one thing for them to ask for your documents, but the violent search . . . I don't think so. [40]

> One day I get off the bus, at 10 or 11 p.m., I see a light directed at me, it is a patrol car, I have nothing to fear, but it is a patrol car, and they stop me . . . I say to myself I have nothing to fear. I look to the end of the block and I see a person walk by with a toilet bowl, and I tell the officer, "You stop me, and you will find nothing on me, but look at that guy, are you going to tell me he's coming from the hardware store and that he just bought a toilet bowl [at 11 p.m.]?" "Shut your mouth," [the police officer ordered] when they talk to you like that, in that moment you are afraid.[41]

The qualitative interviews suggest the existence of a tipping point and a possible change in attitude toward the police. Our research design centers on identifying the building blocks of a theory; providing evidence of changes in attitudes in the long term would require a longitudinal design. Nevertheless, our survey results provide some evidence suggestive of a tipping point. The tipping point associates the extent of support for punitiveness, the perceived likelihood of being a victim of violence in the neighborhood, and the perceived likelihood of being a victim of police violence. Ideally, we would represent this relationship as the marginal effect of suffering police violence on support for punitiveness comparing respondents who were victims of crime to those who were not. However, the

proportion of respondents who experienced police violence and who experienced crime victimization in our sample is not sufficient to produce statistically significant results.[42] Instead, we use our survey questions to explore this point descriptively, this information should be interpreted with caution as the number of respondents is small.

Descriptive statistics of crime victimization and victimization at the hands of the police show that respondents who experienced police violence have a more negative opinion about punitive police (in our case, about PADO) than those who did not (see Tables A2 and A3 in the appendix). In addition, we also find that a larger proportion of respondents who experienced crime victimization (66%) tends to have a more positive opinion about punitive police. Even though a majority of non-victims also has a positive opinion about punitive police, it is a smaller proportion (59%).[43]

To strengthen our argument further we conducted interviews in more affluent neighborhoods. Although we also find support for punitiveness in affluent neighborhoods, it is not based on the same foundations as in low-income contexts, we did not find evidence of the dilemma of substitution. Unlike peripheral neighborhoods in Montevideo, higher-income areas have relatively low levels of violent crime. In these neighborhoods, especially areas surrounding business centers, residents also face crime, in particular car thefts and muggings. Yet, violent events in these contexts are not present in the same magnitude, and they are widely different from those faced by residents in the periphery. In higher income areas there is no presence of criminal groups, or shootouts (Bonomi et al., 2017, pp. 73–95). Similarly, our interviewees do not refer to police violence in the neighborhood, which is to be expected as police presence is also lower:

> Parque Rodó is not characterized for being violent, or for violent robberies like in other areas, although there are some. There are some spots where people sell drugs, but when we report it to police, they have taken action.[44]

> There are some crimes against property, like cars or small businesses. Many times, neighbors complain about things they heard that happened to other people. In some cases, the feeling of insecurity is real but in others it is not.[45]

Our qualitative fieldwork shows that different foundations form the basis for preferences for punitiveness. Our focus is on understanding the rationale behind preference formation in low-income contexts vis-à-vis others, as residents in low-income neighborhoods tend to also bear the brunt of police violence, and therefore we should not expect to observe high support. The dilemma of substitution reconciles two issues that seem contradictory a priori: supporting punitiveness and suffering the consequences of such choice.

Conclusions

This paper provides a theory to explain the apparent contradiction between high support for punitive practices among individuals more likely to experience police excessive use of force. Combining qualitative fieldwork with an online public opinion survey, the project demonstrates that support for punitive practices may be based on mechanisms conditioned by social class. In analyzing this issue, the paper contributes to broader discussions about the relationship between individuals' preferences and the adoption of punitive security policies.

Using a case of comparatively low violence, the paper not only shows that support for punitiveness is high among residents in general, but also that support is even higher within those groups that are more likely to be targeted by police abuse. The mechanism behind this phenomenon is what we call a dilemma of substitution: when searching for increased security from violent crime, individuals run the risk of experiencing police violence instead. This foundation is rooted in a short-term rationale that originates in a wide array of lived experiences in violent contexts. In more affluent neighborhoods we also find evidence of high support for punitiveness, but with different foundations. In these contexts, police presence is not as frequent, which creates fewer opportunities for abuse. In addition, because violent crime is less prevalent, residents do not face a dilemma of substitution.

Our findings are problematic for the well-being of democracy for at least three reasons. First, because punitive policing is not distributed equally in the territory, support for these practices further undermines the equal application of the law. Second, if public opinion behaves as we suggest, the likelihood of building political coalitions to promote democratic security policy is low (González, 2021) Politicians, irrespective of their individual policy preferences, are subjected to strong pressures to favor punitiveness as a strategy to combat crime, further weakening the rule of law. Yet, under certain circumstances individuals' preferences may change. This paper suggests that there is a tipping point that triggers preference change: when individuals suffer police abuse, they might question whether they should support punitive strategies. A key element to change preferences is whether abuse is systematic, and the extent of societal tolerance for police violence. Yet, if tolerance is the result of repeated police abuse, a tipping point may be followed by an increase in tolerance for police abuse, which may make institutional reform even more challenging. Future longitudinal studies are necessary to test this assumption. Finally, police behavior is key to state legitimacy. Police are necessary to enforce the rule of law, and to do so, they rely on citizens' cooperation. If they are too repressive, they run the risk of losing citizens' trust, which impacts their effectiveness and the state's efficacy in managing social conflict.

A lingering question beyond the scope of this paper is whether support for punitiveness varies among poor urban citizens. Our provisional answer is that such variation lies in the tipping point: citizens of urban peripheries who suffer more police violence will be less likely to support punitiveness. One of the limitations of this research is that we do not have enough variation among the poor in the survey to test this empirical implication, nor do we have sufficient qualitative interviews with young individuals or the poorest among the poor, two populations that tend to be more targeted by police in Montevideo. This is an avenue for future research.

Notes

1. In the 1970s, most Latin American countries were under military dictatorships (with the exception of Colombia, Venezuela, and Mexico). Most democratic transitions began in mid-1980s (the earliest was Ecuador in 1979, and the latest was Chile in 1990).
2. We understand punitive policing as different from violent, or aggressive policing. Punitiveness refers to the preferential use of punishment, which may or may not imply excessive use of force. Conversely, violent policing may or may not be punitive, for example, it could be aimed at deterrence.
3. For example, Yashar (2018, p. 12) compares violence levels for countries in Latin America: Uruguay, Argentina, Chile, Costa Rica, Cuba and Peru are classified as exhibiting low levels of crime and violence per 100,000 population; whereas Colombia, El Salvador and Guatemala are among the countries with the highest levels of violence.
4. Increasing contact between citizens and police is a strategy to foster positive attitudes toward police and the co-production of security via community policing (Bayley, 2008; Haim et al., 2021). However, recent research in several countries in the Global South suggests that community policing does not necessarily produce positive contact or increases in trust (Blair et al., Forthcoming).
5. According to Beach and Pedersen (2016) a causal mechanism explains why we observe a given outcome and, in particular, the process that led to such outcome. Causal mechanisms are the chain of factors or intermediate events that lie between a hypothesized explanatory factor and the observed outcome.
6. We operationalize this concept as those individuals who live in neighborhoods where the average income per capita is low, as defined by the Uruguayan National Institute for Statistics (Llambí & Piñeyro, 2012).
7. Map built by authors with publicly available data provided by the Ministry of Social Development https://mapas.mides.gub.uy
8. Administratively, Uruguay is organized as follows: it is a unitary state (as opposed to a federal one) with two subnational administrative levels. The first level consists of 19 departments, each of which is governed by a mayor. Within each department there are local councils that oversee several neighborhoods. Montevideo, is simultaneously one of the 19 departments, and the capital city (the boundaries of the city coincide with the departmental boundaries). Policing is organized and overseen at the national level by the Ministry of Interior, each department has a Departmental Police Chief who oversees local police stations, local governments do not oversee policing and there are no decentralized city police forces.
9. Interview, high-rank police officer, March 19, 2019.

10. Institución Nacional de Derechos Humanos y Defensoría del Pueblo. 2019. "Resoluciones Dirigidas al Ministerio del Interior, 2012–2018." (National Human Rights Ombudsman, Resolutions Involving the Ministry of Interior 2012–2018).
11. For a descriptive summary of the interviews see the appendix.
12. Map built by authors with data provided by the Ministry of Interior. For confidentiality reasons, shaded areas on the map do not exactly align with PADO presence. The map corresponds to areas in 2019–2020, which have since changed.
13. The remaining 29% responded either "I don't know the program" or "I don't know" in the sense of not having an opinion.
14. We follow methodological research suggesting that when research designs are based on interviews, researchers should triangulate among different types of interviewees to produce better inferences (Mosley 2013).
15. Our recruitment strategy consisted of buying an advertisement on Facebook. Facebook displays the ad which contains a brief description of the survey inviting Facebook users to participate. The ad includes a link to Qualtrics (a reputable survey company which ensures the privacy of respondents) which takes respondents to a separate platform outside of Facebook.
16. PADO police are clearly distinguishable from regular police. Their uniforms are either black or camouflaged green, as opposed to the blue uniforms that regular police wear. PADO police uniforms read "PADO." In addition, their weaponry is heavier, and their vehicles also read "PADO."
17. The comparison is between those who prefer PADO versus other forms of policing (including no police presence). A disaggregated figure (Figure A1) is included in the appendix.
18. Although the number of controls is limited by the information we were able to gather through the survey, we believe that we reasonably account for prevailing explanations. In addition, research in statistics suggests that including a large number of controls in regression analyses can be counterproductive (see example Angrist & Pischke, 2008; Cinelli et al., 2022; Wooldridge, 2010). In the appendix, we assess the possibility of omitted variable bias through sensitivity analysis.
19. Even though we conducted the survey with a total of 2,900 respondents, our regression analyses only encompass 1,680 observations due to missing data.
20. Genetic matching performs multivariate matching using an evolutionary search algorithm to determine the weight of each covariate. The algorithm maximizes the balance of observed confounders across treated and control units that are matched. This is a non-parametric method; it does not depend on estimating the propensity score and requires fewer assumptions about the functional form of our covariates of interest. In the appendix we provide more detail about the different matching methods we used (Diamond & Sekhon, 2013).
21. We also re-estimated our models with the pre-processed sample after full matching and the results are consistent, which gives us more confidence that researchers' choices do not seem to affect our results.
22. Interview, neighbor, Marconi, June 27, 2019.
23. Interview, teacher, Casavalle, June 17, 2019.
24. Interview, neighbor, Cerro, June 13, 2019.
25. Interview, neighbor, Borro, August 18, 2020.
26. Interview, neighbor, Marconi, June 27, 2019.
27. Interview, neighbor, Casavalle, August 1, 2019.
28. Interview, neighbor, Cerro, June 20, 2019.
29. Interview, local government official, Casavalle, July 4, 2019.
30. Interview, social worker, Marconi, June 18, 2019.
31. Interview, neighbor, Las Acacias, Julio 8, 2020.
32. A list with the different activities and services offered is available here https://municipiod.montevideo.gub.uy/centro-c%C3%ADvico-luisa-cuesta Accessed May 10, 2021.
33. Documented in (Casanova, 2019).
34. The Civic Center is not equipped to register complaints, or to provide assistance, but it can help residents find the right avenues to lodge complaints (Interview, public official June 19, 2019).
35. Institución Nacional de Derechos Humanos y Defensoría del Pueblo. Informe Anual a la Asamblea General 2020. https://www.gub.uy/institucion-nacional-derechos-humanos-uruguay/comunicacion/publicaciones/informe-anual-asamblea-general-2020 Accessed May 10, 2021.
36. Interviews on: February 18, 2020 (resident); June 13, 2019 (residents and public employee); June 17, 2019 (local officer); July 19, 2019 (priest).
37. Community meeting, Casavalle, August 1, 2019.
38. Interview, local government employee, Casavalle, June 17, 2019.
39. Interview, neighbor, Cerro, June 13, 2019.
40. Interview, neighbor, Borro, August 18, 2020.
41. Interview, neighbor, Borro, August 18, 2020.

42. The largest group is represented by those who said having been stopped and asked for their documents, which is about 4% of our total sample. For more violent interactions, such as physical violence that proportion is much smaller.
43. See tables in the appendix.
44. Interview, local leader, Parque Rodó, August 21, 2019.
45. Interview, local government official, Parque Rodó, July 31, 2019.

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